

ENG523 - (FINALS COMPILATION)

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ENG523

CHAPTER WISE IMPORTANT QUESTIONS

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Chapter 8

✧ Metaphor ?

Ans: Lakoff (1987) and Johnson (1980) present the use of metaphor in thought as just one part of a predominant theory of the nature of the mind. But their arguments about "objectivist metaphysics," generative approaches to linguistics and other controversial ideas may have drawn attention away from this specific claim. Therefore, in this article I will examine metaphoric representation as a theory of conceptual structure. I will not be addressing most of the other views of its proponents.

✧ What is verbal metaphor?

In verbal metaphor, there are usually two explicit parts: a topic, which is the entity being talked about, and the vehicle, which is the metaphoric material being predicated of the topic. (Some authors refer to these as the target and source, respectively.) For example, in Lee is a block of ice, Lee is the topic, and block of ice is the vehicle. The implicit connection between the two is often referred to as the ground. In this case, the ground is that blocks of ice have a cold temperature, and this is interpreted in terms of emotional unresponsiveness

✧ CDA?

Politics and ideology were seen as displayed through grammatical structure, and analyzing language in this way was referred to as "Critical Linguistics." This approach has since been expanded, both in methodology and theory, and is now seen as part of the broader analytic program known as Critical Discourse Analysis (CDA). Wodak and Meyer (2009) moving the "linguistic" to a "multi- disciplinary and multi-methodological level"; although grammar remains a central tool in explaining how ideology, power, and domination become constituted through linguistic structures.

✧ Supra- segmental features by braga and aldina?

Braga and Aldina Marques (2004), argue that supra-segmental features may be harnessed and used in correlation with syntactic, lexical, and pragmatic features to achieve specific political effects. In a study of political debates, politicians focused on a set of prosodic features, including pitch, emphasis, and focus and noted that particular patterns were found to match argumentative goals such as assertiveness, irony, emotion, and hyperbole. While the study of sounds and sound patterns involves a variety of technical forms of analysis, it is nonetheless an important component of the consideration of political discourse.

✧ How duez attempt the aspect of acoustic patterning?

Duez (1997) has attempted to correlate aspects of acoustic patterning with degrees of political power. Duez suggests that aspects of acoustic delivery within the speeches of

ex-French President Francois Mitterrand were affected by whether Mitterrand was in the role of challenger or opponent, as opposed to holder of the position of president. While in the role of president, Mitterrand made use of a slower articulation rate, but when in the position of challenger, or opponent, the articulation rate was much more rapid. Hence, Duez suggests that temporal organization could reflect relative distance from “power.”

✧ Define media discourse?

Media discourse refers to interactions that take place through a broadcast platform, whether spoken or written, in which the discourse is oriented to a non-present reader, listener or viewer. Though the discourse is oriented towards these recipients, they very often cannot make instantaneous responses to the producer of the discourse, though increasingly this is changing with the advent of new media technology, as we shall explore.

✧ Three main approaches of media discourse?

The three main approaches to the study of media discourse can be characterized as ☐

Discourse analytic ☐

Sociolinguistic ☐

Nonlinguistic

✧ Difference between sociolinguistics and non-linguistic?

sociolinguistics	Non-linguistic
The term “sociolinguistic” for work that involves variation and style in the media or a similar close analysis of language.	The “nonlinguistic” research involves work in political science, media studies, or communication studies paradigms and, to some degree, in cultural studies.
Sociolinguistic insights, either to characterize some dimension of media language, such as variation and style, or to inform related discourse level work, such as genre and register.	Nonlinguistic domains are referred to by media discourse researchers perhaps more than in any other topical area of discourse analysis.

✧ Briefly explain Goffman’s frame analysis of radio talk?

Goffman’s frame analysis of radio talk (1981) was one of the first to articulate and apply the insight that the relationships among the different interlocutors determine the nature of the speech event and the talk that is appropriate to it. Similarly, in Bell’s view (1991), which builds on Goffman’s categories of participant roles, the media audience takes on multiple roles: that of speaker, addressee, auditor, overhearer, and eavesdropper. As mediasavvy participants in the larger culture, we recognize audience roles and embedded points of view and are conscious when an interviewee – or an interviewer – departs from a prescribed position.

✧ How advertising messages used as a mean of communication?

Advertising is a means of communication with the users of a product or service. Advertisements are messages paid for by those who send them and are intended to inform or influence people who receive. Ads are wonderful examples of the diverse roles discourse can fulfill in society. To consider them as discourse types can prove very enlightening about the ways people communicate and relate to each other within the different spheres where they perform their daily activities. This exemplary character is basically connected with the very nature of ads: advertising is one of the liveliest and most representative forms of discourse when it comes to displaying its own inner functioning, since it not only enhances its status as a linguistic form of communication but also foregrounds the need for context when it comes to the full

understanding of the overall message which is the cornerstone of discourse analysis as a method of discursive interpretation

✧ What is the concept of “whole picture” in the multimedia advertising campaigns?

In the specific case of multimedia advertising campaigns, the ‘whole picture’ should doubtlessly be the main focus of analysis. This is where the message effectively lies, since ‘each medium presents its own obvious advantages for advertisers, but also some disadvantages. Multimedia campaigns offer one way of compensating for the weaknesses of one channel by using the strong points of others’ (Freitas, 2004). In that manner, the intended ‘advertising pressure’ can be exerted upon the viewers (Brochand et al., 1999), guaranteeing that, in one way or another, they will be exposed to at least a part of the divulgation effort.

✧ Discourse analysis of telecom Ads?

Discourse Analysis of Telecom Ads: It can be seen that the ad has used different font sizes and colors to grab the attention of the audience. It is also noticed that the information regarding the conditions that apply in availing the promoted product or services are given at the bottom of the layout in fine prints. People hardly read that part because it is written in very small fonts. People tend to ignore the information not deliberately but unconsciously, which are written in small font as it does not attract people as much as the big colored fonts. It is tactics followed by the ad makers to make the audience not to notice all the written information.

Chapter 9

✧ What is discursive psychology? Describe its principle?

Discursive psychology is an approach that addresses psychological matters in terms of how they figure in discourse in conversations over family mealtimes, in therapy sessions, in witness statements. It begins with psychology, as it confronts people as they live their lives.

Discourse is: ☐ Oriented to action ☐ Situated sequentially, institutionally and rhetorically ☐ Constructed and constructive

✧ Describe the major ways in which the discourse action is situated?

A central recognition of DP is that actions are situated. The most profound way that action is situated is in terms of the here and now of conversational sequence. Talk is occasioned. This point is at the heart of discursive psychological research practice. When we move from language as an abstract system that has a static and abstract relation to the world and to mental organizations to an action-focused approach, we are immediately considering the way events unfold in real time. A second major way in which an action is situated is institutionally. DP does not adopt a position of contextual determinism; it does not treat all interaction in a doctor’s surgery, say, as intrinsically medical. Nor does it treat institutional talk as organized into coherent, conceptually organized discourses, such that medical settings will implicate a medical discourse or register. A third major way in which an action is situated is rhetorically. This came out of the early engagement with Billig’s (1996) rhetorical psychology. It highlights the way that descriptions are often organized to counter actual or potential alternatives and organized in ways that manage actual or possible attempts to undermine them

✧ Heritage suggest three ways for participants to turn towards interaction . explain

these ways?

Heritage (2004) suggests that participants turn towards interaction in at least three ways. First, they address themselves to immediately preceding talk. Second, they set up the conditions for the action or actions that will come next. Third, in the production of next actions, participants show a set of understandings of the prior action: that it is complete, that it was addressed to them rather than someone else, what kind of action it was and so on. This atmosphere provides for the intelligibility of interaction that is crucial for participants and offers an extraordinarily rich resource for analysts.

✧ Define intention studies in discursive psychology?

Ideas of intention have had a range of different roles in the social sciences. One of the most influential is probably in the field social cognition, where the theory of planned behaviour (Ajzen, 1991) has been associated with more than a thousand articles in the last two decades. This theory treats intentions as the product of a number of different elements, which work in combination to affect behavioural outcomes. Intention is treated as a kind of mental push that will result in the person engaging in the actual behaviour, unless something intervenes to prevent it.

✧ Significance of attitudes in discursive psychology?

One of the major areas of historical and contemporary social psychology is the study of attitudes. Indeed, attitudes are a commonplace of work from across the social sciences. The discursive psychological critique of the way attitudes was conceptualized was developed right from the start (Potter and Wetherell, 1987, 1988; Potter, 1998). It emphasized that evaluations were part of practices embedded in interaction, where they played particular roles. And it emphasized that evaluations are often produced by constituting the 'attitudinal object' in particular ways rather than by claiming a personal psychological position.

✧ What is Interactional sociolinguistics?

Interactional sociolinguistics (IS) studies the language use of people in face-to-face interaction. It is a theoretical and methodological perspective on language use with eclectic roots in a wide variety of disciplines such as dialectology, ethnomethodology, conversation analysis, pragmatics, linguistic anthropology, micro-ethnography and sociology. Basically, IS starts from the finding that, when people talk, they are unable to say explicitly enough everything they mean. As a result, to appreciate what is meant, they cannot simply rely on the words that are used but must also depend on background knowledge, to discover what others assumed the relevant context was for producing words in. Interactional sociolinguistics (IS) studies the language use of people in face-to-face interaction. It is a theoretical and methodological perspective on language use with eclectic roots in a wide variety of disciplines such as dialectology, ethnomethodology, conversation analysis, pragmatics, linguistic anthropology, micro-ethnography and sociology. Basically, IS starts from the finding that, when people talk, they are unable to say explicitly enough everything they mean. As a result, to appreciate what is meant, they cannot simply

rely on the words that are used but must also depend on background knowledge, to discover what others assumed the relevant context was for producing words in.

✧ How do you make an IS analysis?

If you want to make an IS analysis, you will need first-hand data that are as rich as possible. This usually implies doing long-term ethnographic fieldwork in one setting during which you familiarize yourself with the local communicative ecology, appreciate how it is related to broader social structures and assemble as much commentary from participants as possible. Without this ethnographic knowledge, it will be difficult to pick up the background knowledge that interactants in that setting only display via subtle references. Recordings (digital or otherwise) of naturally occurring speech are a must-have, since it is next to impossible to reconstruct interactions from memory in the amount of detail you need in order to discover their moment-to-moment organization. It is not always easy to make recordings, but, once you have them, they will allow you to revisit the recorded scene as much as you like so as to check hypotheses. Making a transcript of your recordings is the following indispensable and quite time-intensive step.

✧ Write down at least three reasons about the importance of Interactional sociolinguistics ?

Interactional Sociolinguistics is important because it draws our attention to the existence of subtle cultural differences in the systematic combination of verbal and non-verbal signs which signal contexts and construct meaning, differences that are often hard to pin down by those who use them. IS can claim credit for having shown in great detail that disastrous consequences may follow if such different styles remain hidden and lead to miscommunication in gatekeeping encounters: applicants do not only fail to get a job or admission to a course, but often find their personal and ethnic background targeted as the cause for communication failure. IS has thus managed to uncover meaning and reason behind communicative styles that are regularly identified as inarticulate and incoherent, and the social relevance of this cannot be underestimated

✧ What is physical anthropology?

Anthropology is a unique academic discipline that operates at the crossroads of the physical sciences, social sciences and humanities to examine the diversity of human experience across cultures and over time. Anthropologists in our department study everything from human evolution to prehistory to life in a globalizing world

✧ Basic tenets of physical anthropology?

Basic tenets of physical anthropology: Holism: Holism means that a part of something can only truly be understood if examined within relation to the whole of it. For anthropologists, this means that they try to understand humankind through the interrelationships of all aspects of human existence for example, human biology has to be examined within the context of human cultures and vice versa.

Relativism: Relativism means that judgments, truths, or moral values have no absolutes, and can only be understood relative to the situation or individuals involved.

For anthropologists, this means that they accept that all cultures are of equal value and must be studied from a neutral point of view. A good anthropologist must disregard their own beliefs, morals, and judgments when examining another culture. They must, instead, examine each culture within the context of its own beliefs. Universalism:

Universalism means that whatever the theoretical principle is, it's equally applicable to all. For anthropologists, universalism means that we believe all humans are equal in intelligence, complexity, etc. This is in contrast to ethnocentrism, which is the belief that some peoples are more important or culturally/biologically better than other

peoples. Culture: All humans have culture. Culture is the set of learned behaviors and knowledge that belong to a certain set of people. This is different from genetically hardwired behaviors (such as reflexes) in that they aren't biologically inherited. The most important thing to remember is that culture is learned.

✧ What cultural anthropologist study about?

Cultural anthropologists study the diversity of human cultures and societies around the world and the processes by which people construct local, regional and global forms of social relationships. Several anthropologists in our department study the processes by which people construct particular social identities, worldviews, and forms of community in a changing, globalizing world. In the contemporary world, much ethnography addresses the manner in which people in local communities orient themselves to global networks and institutions.

✧ Write a brief note on linguistic anthropology?

Linguistic anthropology is the interdisciplinary study of how language influences social life. It is a branch of anthropology that originated from the endeavor to document endangered languages, and has grown over the past century to encompass most aspects of language structure and use. As a field of anthropology, linguistic anthropologists are concerned with how language influences culture. This can include how language impacts social interactions, beliefs, cultural identity, and other important aspects of culture

Chapter 10

✧ Write a brief note on EAP?

English for Academic Purposes (EAP) is usually defined as teaching English with the aim of assisting learners' study or research in that language. In this sense it is a broad term, covering all areas of academic communicative practice such as pre-tertiary, undergraduate and post-graduate teaching, classroom interactions, academic publishing and curriculum issues, as well as research, student and instructional genres (e.g., Hyland, 2009a). The emergence of EAP in the 1980s, as a response to growing numbers of second language (L2) students in university courses and in a framework informed by English for specific purposes, originally produced an agenda concerned with curriculum and instruction rather than with theory and analysis.

✧ Current aim of EAP?

Current EAP aims, therefore, at capturing thicker descriptions of language use in the academy at all age and proficiency levels, incorporating and often going beyond immediate communicative contexts to understand the nature of disciplinary knowledge itself. It employs a range of interdisciplinary influences for its research methods, theories and practices to provide insights into the structures and meanings of spoken, written, visual and electronic texts, into the demands placed by academic contexts on communicative behaviors, and into the pedagogic practices by which these behaviors can be developed

✧ Academic discourse analysis?

Academic discourse analysis research has also pointed to cultural specificity in rhetorical preferences (e.g., Connor, 2002). Although 'culture' is a controversial term, one influential interpretation regards it as a historically transmitted and systematic network of meanings that allow us to understand, develop and communicate our knowledge and beliefs about the world. Culture is seen as inextricably bound up with language (Kramsch, 1993), so that cultural factors have the potential to influence

perception, language, learning and communication. Although it is far from conclusive, discourse analytic research suggests that the schemata of L2 and L1 (first language) writers differ in their preferred ways of organizing ideas that can influence academic writing (e.g., Hinkel, 2002).

✧ Genre analysis?

Genre analysis can be seen as a more specific form of discourse analysis, which focuses on any element of recurrent language use, including grammar and lexis that is relevant to the analyst's interests. As a result, genre analysis sees texts as representative of wider rhetorical practices and so has the potential to offer descriptions and explanations both of texts and of the communities that use them. Genres are the recurrent uses of more or less conventionalized forms through which individuals develop relationships, establish communities and get things done using language.

✧ Example of EAP genre?

One example of this is a study of self-mention, which concerns how far writers want to interrupt into their texts through use of 'I' or 'we', or avoid it by choosing impersonal forms. The use of self-mention is a rather annoyed issue in academic writing and remains a perennial problem for students, teachers and experienced writers alike; the extent to which one can reasonably assert one's personal involvement remains highly controversial. While claims have to be warranted by appropriate support and reference to existing knowledge by fitting novelty into a community consensus, success in gaining acceptance for innovation also involves demonstrating an individual contribution to that community and establishing a claim for recognition for academic priority. To some extent this is a personal preference, determined by seniority, experience, personality and so on (Hyland, 2010), but the study illustrated here shows that the presence or absence of explicit author reference is a conscious choice by writers to adopt a particular community-situated authorial identity.

✧ Corpus?

A corpus is usually computer-readable and able to be accessed with tools such as concordances which are able to find and sort out language patterns. The corpus has usually (although not always) been designed for the purpose of the analysis, and the texts have been selected to provide a sample of specific text-types, or genres, or a broad and balanced sample of spoken and/or written discourse (Stubbs 2004).

✧ Types of corpus?

Corpora may be general or they may be specialized. A general corpus, also known as a reference corpus: "Aims to represent language in its broadest sense and to serve as a widely available resource for baseline or comparative studies of general linguistic features." (Reppen and Simpson 2004). A general corpus, thus, provides sample data from which we can make generalizations about spoken and written discourse as a whole, and frequencies of occurrence and co-occurrence of particular aspects of language in the discourse. A specialized corpus, as Hunston (2002) explains is: "A corpus of texts of a particular type, such as newspaper editorials, geography textbooks, academic articles in a particular subject, lectures, casual conversations, essays written by students etc. It aims to be representative of a given type of text. It is used to investigate a particular type of language."

✧ How Hyland study about the use of personal pronouns?

Hyland's (2002) study of the use of personal pronouns such as I, me, we and us in Hong Kong student's academic writing is an example of a corpus that was designed to answer a question about the use of discourse in a particular genre, in a particular

setting. The specific aim of his study was to examine the extent to which student writers use self-mention in their texts 'to strengthen their arguments and gain personal recognition for their claims' in their written discourse, as expert writers do (Hyland 2005). His question was related to issues of discourse and identity, and the place of this writing practice in a particular academic and social community.

✧ **Issues that consider in constructing a corpus?**

There are a number of issues that need to be considered when constructing a corpus.

□ The first of these is what to include in the corpus; that is, the variety or dialect of the language, the genre(s) to be included, whether the texts should be spoken, written or both and whether the texts should be monologic, dialogic or multi-party. □ The next issue is the size of the corpus and of the individual texts, as well as the number of texts to include in each category. The issue is not, however, just corpus size, but also the way in which the data will be collected and the kinds of questions that will be examined using the data (McCarthy and Carter 2001). Even a small corpus can be useful for investigating certain discourse features. □ The sources and subject matter of the texts may also be an issue that needs to be considered. □ Other issues include sociolinguistic and demographic considerations such as the nationality, gender, age, occupation, education level, native language or dialect and the relationship between participants in the texts.

✧ **What type of text include in a corpus?**

A key issue is what kind of texts the corpus should contain. This decision may be based on what the corpus is designed for, but it may also be constrained by what texts are available. Another issue is the permanence of the corpus; that is, whether it will be regularly updated so that it does not become unrepresentative, or whether it will remain as an example of the use of discourse at a particular point in time

✧ **Sizes of texts that recommend in corpus construction?**

The size of texts in the corpus is also a consideration. Some corpora aim for an even sample size of individual texts. If, for example, the corpus aims to represent a particular genre, and instances of the genre are typically long, or short, this needs to be reflected in the collection of texts that make up the corpus.

✧ **Which factors used in representation of a corpus?**

The representativeness of the corpus further depends on the extent to which it includes the range of linguistic distribution in the population. That is, different linguistic features are differently distributed (within texts, across texts, across text types), and a representative corpus must enable analysis of these various distributions. A corpus, then, needs to aim for both representativeness and balance, both of which, as Kennedy (1998) points out, are in the end matters of judgment and approximation

✧ **Backstage in politician?**

It is much more difficult to explore the 'backstage', the everyday life of politicians, than the staging of 'grand politics. Once we enter the backstage, for example in the European Parliament (see below), we encounter the routines of political organizations that are at first sight nontransparent and seem as chaotic as in any organization. Hence, ethnographic research is needed, such as participant observation in organizations, in-depth and narrative interviews, shadowing of insiders, and so forth to be able to grasp the processes of political strategizing and decision-making. Focusing only on typical front-stage activities (such as political speeches, for example) does not suffice to understand and explain the complexity of 'politics. This is why the organizational contexts (structures, rules, regulations, and constraints) have to be accounted for in detail.

✧ **Ethnomethodology?**

Ethnomethodology, whilst technically rooted in sociology, emphasizes the conditions that have to be satisfied for certain actions to be perceived as signifying a recognized sanction (Garfinkel et al., 1981). Conversation analysis (CA) identifies the very detailed aspects of members' turntaking strategies that are critical to performance and membership (Schegloff, 1987; Drew and Heritage, 1992) and deals with relatively short stretches of interaction as being revealing and representative of, the organizations' interactional principles. Sociolinguistic analysis has a basis in the tradition of correlating sociological parameters (e.g., age, class and gender) with variations in organizational discourse (Bernstein, 1987).

✧ **Discourse - historical approach?**

DHA provides a vehicle for looking at latent power dynamics and the range of potential in agents, because it integrates and triangulates knowledge about historical, inter-textual sources and the background of the social and political fields within which discursive events are embedded. Moreover, the DHA distinguishes between three dimensions that constitute textual meanings and structures: the topics that are spoken/written about; the discursive strategies employed; and the linguistic means that are drawn upon to realize both topics and strategies

✧ **Four layers of context?**

Systematic qualitative analysis in the DHA takes four layers of context into account: the intertextual and inter-discursive relationships between utterances, texts, genres and discourses; the extra-linguistic social/sociological variables; the history and archaeology of texts and organizations; and institutional frames of the specific context of a situation (the specific episodes under investigation). In this way we are able to explore how discourses, genres and texts change due to socio-political contexts, and with what effects

✧ **Perspectives and limitations of politics?**

Common sense supposes that politicians are very well organized, in spite of the many urgent and important events they must deal with, which have an impact on all our lives. We all have cognitive models (event models, experience models, context models: van Dijk, 2008), which quickly and automatically update, distinguish, comprehend and store such events. From this we might assume that politicians also regularly access their own set of cognitive models for 'doing politics' in order to respond rapidly, in a rational and quite predictable way, to the various events they encounter

Chapter 11

✧ **Traditional pronunciation?**

Traditional pronunciation teaching has found its strength in the ability of linguists to segment the sounds of language into isolated items called phonemes which, when used in the construction of words, produce meaningful contrasts with other words (e.g. the phonemes /p/ and /b/ in English give us contrasts such as pump and bump, pat and bat, .etc.). The position and manner of articulation of phonemes in a language like English are well described and can be presented and practiced in language classes either as isolated sounds, in words, in contrasting pairs of words or in minimal contexts.

✧ **Word stress and prominence?**

Word stress, as it is traditionally understood, and prominence, as we shall use it here, are two distinct levels. Where they overlap, of course, is in the fact that prominences may not be distributed just anywhere in the word, but may only fall on certain

syllables. Where two prominences can occur in the same word, as is often the case with a whole class of words such as IapanESE, UNiVERsal, conGRATuLAtions, etc., the second will always be the stronger.

✧ Define into-national unit?

Intonation units are an important component of American English pronunciation and speech. An intonation unit is a segment of speech. It can be as small as a single word, or as long as a sentence. Two sentences with identical grammatical structure may be comprised of differing numbers of intonation units when spoken, based on the intent or emotional state of the speaker. It's important to learn to distinguish these units because they give subtle meanings and help organize a conversation. There is no single determiner as to where intonation units begin and end or how many a single sentence contains, but there are clues

✧ Elements that use to describe intonation units?

Sentences can often be broken up into multiple intonation units. Each intonation unit usually has a single pitch word and ends in a pitch boundary. Each pitch word conveys information to the listener, and each pitch boundary helps organize how speakers take turns speaking. Similar sentences can have a different number of intonation units. The end of each intonation unit is marked with a hash (/) and the pitch words are bolded. Notice that the speaker with fewer intonation units spoke faster, with fewer pauses, and with fewer changes in pitch during the statement. The sentence with more intonation units sounds more emphatic and deliberate about what is being said

✧ Turn-taking?

Turn-taking is another important aspect of pitch level in this view of intonation. The speaker can signal a desire to continue a speaking turn by using non-low pitch, even at a point where there is a pause, or at the end of a syntactic unit, such as a clause. Equally, a down-step in pitch is often a good turn-yielding cue. The intonational cues interact with other factors such as syntax, lexis, non-verbal communication and the context itself, and are typical of how the different levels of encoding have to be seen as operating in harmony in a discourse-oriented view of language

✧ Transitivity?

In traditional grammar, transitivity was developed as the concept of transitive or intransitive verb (Halliday, 1976) whether the verb takes an object or not, but in SFL it functions to link grammar to the meta functions; however, in Halliday's terms, transitivity as a major component in experiential function of the clause deals with the "transmission of ideas "representing 'processes' or 'experiences': actions, events, processes of consciousness and relations" (1985). It is a semantic system to analyze representations of reality in a linguistic text and create the same experience through various lexico-grammatical options influenced by different mind styles or authorial ideology. (Fowler, 1986). It manifests how certain choices encode the author's certain ideological stance affected by social and cultural institution because according to Fowler these linguistic codes cannot reflect reality neutrally and definitely embody ideologies. (1986) It also functions as a rich analytic tool utilized in critical discourse analysis, dealing with "who or what does what to whom or what?" where actor, action and goal as affected are highlighted. Transitivity with inter-related options to represent different types of process or experience investigated from above, below, and around consists of process, participant with different labels such as Actor, Goal; Sensor

✧ Halliday's systemic functions. Name them?

Michael Halliday, the founder of systemic functional linguistics, calls these three

functions the ideational, interpersonal, and textual.

✧ **Ideational meta- function?**

Ideational Meta-function: Ideational meta-function provides grammatical resources at clause rank to construe the inner and outer experience or 'goings-on' of the word, as the domain of functions and meanings of the world through the systems of transitivity. It has two components of logical and experiential functions.

✧ **Define 6 processes of Halliday's meta- function?**

Process refers to a semantic verb (doing, happening, feeling, sensing, saying, behaving, and existing) and anything that it expresses like event, relation, physical, mental or emotional state when sorted in the semantic system of the clause is classified into material, relational, mental, verbal, behavioral, and existential processes. (Halliday, 1976)

✧ **Inter-personal meta-function?**

, interpersonal meta-function at the clausal level enjoys Mood. Mood is concerned with the topic of information or service and whether it is giving or demanding and the tenor of the relationship between interact ants. Tenor deals with gender or status-based power. Muir (1972:92) and Halliday (1981:30) define Mood parallel to interpersonal communication which embraces three grammatical categories of speech function, modality and tone. The interpersonal meta-function concentrates on social roles and relations through formality degree, pronouns, clausal mood

✧ **How SFL helps us to express the speech functions in terms of finite verbs?**

In terms of finite verb, subject and tense choice, SFL helps us express the speech functions such as persuading, enticing, motivating, demanding, inviting, ordering, proposing, recommending, confirming, persisting, and denying through a set of Mood clause systems. Through the scale of delicacy (level of detail and particularity) in the mood system, a clause can be indicative or imperative. Indicative clauses are classified into interrogative and declarative; besides the element of tagging can be explored here

✧ **Speech - functional roles?**

Speech-functional roles help meaning to be achieved through Mood such as statement or question requesting, commanding and offering. Semantic dimensions of functions such as declaration dealing with information exchange (statement), asking information (question), and demanding service (commands) are omnipresent in every language while the structure, organization, degree and realizations of delicate choices differ from one language to another. For every grammatical category, there are different realizations.

✧ **Thematic structures?**

Thematic structure is concerned with Theme, and Rhyme, or the old and new information structure or topic and comment where any component in a clause like Subject, Predicator, Complement or circumstantial Adjunct can be tropicalized and be placed in thematic position or the beginning of the clause which is more significant than other locations in a sentence. Muir (1972) proposes "the thematic element in a clause is the first element which results from choice.

✧ **Semantic dimensions of functions?**

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(1981:330) theme includes the message in a text, indicating the identity of text relations. Topic comes first and after that Comment appears to expand, justify and provide additional information to preceding information.

✧ **Halliday theme includes?**

Halliday (1981:330) theme includes the message in a text, indicating the identity of text relations. Topic comes first and after that Comment appears to expand, justify and provide additional information to preceding information.

✧ **Referencing and its types?**

Classified into homophoric, exophoric and endophoric categories respectively referring to cultural shared information, immediate situation context, and textual information, referencing identifies presupposed information throughout the text. (Eggins 1994) Endophoric referencing divided into anaphoric, cataphoric, and esphoric respectively refers to the previously mentioned (preceding) information in text, information presented later in the text, the same nominal group or phrase following the presupposed item. (Halliday and Hasan 1976). There are also personal, demonstrative, and comparative references referring to speech situation noun pronouns like he, him or possessive determiners like mine and yours, this, here, there, then, same, equal, so, similarly, and otherwise

✧ **Cohesion ? also define lexical cohesion?**

Cohesion, the “non-structural text-forming relations” (Halliday and Hasan 1976) relates to the “semantic ties” or relations of meaning within text. The cohesive devices of referencing, substitution, ellipsis, conjunction, and lexical cohesion were presented by Halliday and Hasan (1976) and Bloor and Bloor (1995)

Lexical Cohesion Lexical cohesion is non-grammatical and refer to the “cohesive effect achieved by the selection of vocabulary” like reiteration where a lexical item directly or indirectly occurs through application of synonym, antonym, metonym, or hyponym or a super-ordinate and collocation where pair of same event or environment lexical items co-occur or found together within the text. When these lexical items are closer, the text enjoys higher degree of cohesion

✧ **Substitution & ellipsis?**

In Bloor and Bloor (1995: 96), substitution and ellipsis are used to avoid the repetition of a lexical item through grammatical resources of the language. The substitution and ellipsis can be nominal, verbal and clausal. Substitution words have the same function such as “one and ones” for nouns and “do” or “so” as in “do so” or “that and “it” for verbal, nominal, and clausal substitutions. Functioning at the level of deictic, enumerative, epithet, classifier, and qualifier, ellipsis as “substitution by zero” refers to a presupposed anaphoric item through structural link

Chapter 12

✧ **Is collocation belongs to lexical cohesion ? limit your answer in 3 lines?**

It is debatable whether collocation properly belongs to the notion of lexical cohesion, since collocation only refers to the probability that lexical items will co-occur, and is not a semantic relation between words. Here, therefore, we shall consider the term 'lexical cohesion' to mean only exact repetition of words and the role played by certain basic semantic relations between words in creating textuality, that property of text which distinguishes it from a random sequence of unconnected sentences. We shall consequently ignore collocation associations across sentence boundaries as lying

outside of these semantic relations

✧ **Define reiteration ? also explain lexical reiteration?**

Reiteration means either restating an item in a later part of the discourse by direct repetition or else reasserting its meaning by exploiting lexical relations. Lexical relations are the stable semantic relationships that exist between words and which are the basis of descriptions given in dictionaries and thesauri: for example, rose and flower are related by hyponymy; rose is a hyponym of flower.

Lexical reiteration can be shown to be a significant feature of textuality, and then there may be something for the language teacher to exploit. We shall not suggest that it be exploited simply because it is there, but only if, by doing so, we can give learners meaningful, controlled practice and the hope of improving their text-creating and decoding abilities, and providing them with more varied contexts for using and practicing vocabulary.

✧ **Types / forms of lexical cohesion?**

- 1) Repetition
- 2) Synonym or near – synonym
- 3) Superordinate
- 4) General Word

✧ **Explain textual aspects of I competence?**

Prior to undertaking the concept of lexical competence, it is worth defining what competence is and how it has been viewed so far. The term competence has generated substantial controversy in the field of general and applied linguistics (Chomsky, 1965; Hymes, 1972). The former regarded it as a pure grammatical competence, that is, “the speaker hearer’s knowledge of his language” and the latter observed that this competence was more related to communication: a normal child acquires knowledge of sentences not only as grammatical, but also as appropriate

✧ **What are the benefits of distinctions that made b/w grammar and lexical words?**

A distinction is often made between grammar words and lexical words in language. This distinction also appears sometimes as function words versus content words, or empty words versus full words. The distinction is a useful one: it enables us to separate off those words which belong to closed systems in the language and which carry grammatical meaning, from those that belong to open systems and which belong to the major word classes of noun, verb, adjective and adverb. This, that, these and those in English belong to a closed system (as do the pronouns and prepositions) and carry the grammatical meaning of 'demonstratives'. Monkey, sculpture, noise and toenail belong to open-ended sets, which are often thought of as the 'creative' end of language. In between these two extremes is another type of vocabulary that has recently been studied by discourse analysts, a type that seems to share qualities of both the open and the closed-set words

✧ **Who introduce the concept of discourse - organizing words?**

McCarthy and McCarthy and Carter introduce the concept of discourse-organizing words whose job in the text is to organize and structure the arguments, rather than answer for its content or field. Some of this discourse-organizing vocabulary consists of words that act as pronouns in the way that they refer in the text to some other part of the text. They include such words, as issue, problem, assessment, question, position, case, situation, etc.

✧ **How hymes introduce communicative competence?**

Psychological correlate of a natural language is the notion of communicative competence as introduced by Hymes (1972). He explicitly states that communicative

competence comprises “not only the ability to understand and interpret linguistic expressions, but also the ability to use these expressions in appropriate and effective ways according to the conventions of verbal interaction prevailing in a linguistic community”. It seems natural to suppose that lexical competence, which could accordingly be defined as the ability to use words in appropriate and effective ways in verbal interaction, is part of communicative competence as defined above.

✧ **Why current linguistic theory ignore the significant aspects of use of lexeme in linguistic utterances ? give reason.**

From a purely grammar-designing perspective, all a linguistic model demands from the lexicon is the basic semantic and syntactic properties of lexical items which are necessary to use them in linguistic expressions. This has been captured in formal theories in standard lexical entries through thematic relations and predicate-argument structures, and, in FG, through classical predicate frames. Thus, from the point of view of the grammar system, many aspects of the meaning of a lexical item are simply irrelevant in the generation of a linguistic expression.

✧ **Types of vocabulary showed by winter?**

Winter (1977) shows that the relationship between clauses can be signaled by three types of vocabulary: Vocabulary 1 such as subordination; Vocabulary 2 such as sentence connectors; and Vocabulary 3 such as lexical items. The last one, Vocabulary 3 is crucial to understanding text organization, although his main concern is the operation of lexical signaling at the level of the paragraph.

✧ **Three patterns of texts organization?**

There are mainly three patterns of text organization (McCarthy 1991; Holland and Johnson 2000): □ Problem-Solution □ General-Specific □ Claim Counter-claim (or Hypothetical-Real)

✧ **Briefly explain problem- solution pattern?**

Hoey (1994) introduces the main stream of discourse analysis structure. According to him, any genre of text, such as the plots of fairy tales, or the writing of scientists, includes ‘the problem solution structure’ (Hoey 1994: 27). He explains this by breaking a short passage consisting of four sentences, and rearranging the sentences in proper order without any signaling expressing a time sequence.

✧ **General - specific pattern?**

he basic structure of this pattern is that text includes “an initial general statement, followed by a series of (progressively) more specific statements, culminating in a further generalization” (Holland and Johnson 2000: 21). In a typical case, a passage including a general statement is followed by another passage, which expands the generalization, such as exemplifying, explaining, and/or justifying. McCarthy offers diagrammatic representations: General statement General statement ↓ ↓ Specific statement Specific statement 1 ↓ ↓ Specific statement Even more specific ↓ ↓ Specific statement Even more specific ↓ ↓ etc etc ↓ ↓ General statement General statement

✧ **Claim - counter - claim patterns?**

The third textual pattern consists of a series of claims and contrasting counterclaims, which is presented on a given topic: Claim 1 → Counter-claim 1 → Claim 2 Counter-claim 2 → This pattern can be found more frequently “in political journalism, as well as in the letters-to-the editor pages of newspapers and magazines” (McCarthy 1991), and also “the stock-in-trade of many a ‘Compare and Contrast ...’ academic essay” (Holland and Johnson 2000: 23). For the purpose of identifying the textual pattern, lexical signals are very useful. For instance, through lexical items, such as claim, assert, truth, false, in fact, ‘segments’ containing them, can be identified as elements of the ‘Claim-Counter-claim’ structure.

✧ Use of idiomatic phrases?

Idiomatic phrases are used as signals of the response and its occurrence after a previous negatively evaluated response (conventional treatments). Idioms are often a problem for the teacher inasmuch as it is not always easy to find natural contexts in which to present them. Research by Moon (1987) suggests that writers and speakers use idiomatic phrases to organize their discourse and to signal evaluation, far more frequently than previous linguistic studies of idiomatically have suggested. Idioms are good metaphors for the kinds of textual segments we have been looking at

✧ Modality?

The term modality“ subsumes a range of concepts within the fields of philosophy, morphology, syntax, semantics, and discourse analysis. Philosophy deals with modality primarily as it applies to categories of logic and to logical reasoning, and while some of the terminology used in philosophical studies of modality is borrowed into other disciplines, these terms are not always used in the same ways or for the same purposes in other disciplines. As Sulkunen and Törrönen explain, for linguists, the logical treatment of modalities is too narrow, because it is centered on truth values of propositions.

✧ Vocabulary signaling & register?

In claiming that particular vocabulary items tend to cluster round certain elements of text patterns we are ignoring the important fact that register is closely tied to lexical selection. Among the signals of the problem element, we proposed problem, drawback and obstacle. Clearly, we might not expect to find problem occurring in this way in a formal scientific report, nor perhaps come up with as a marker for response

✧ 4 modes of modality by georg von wright?

philosopher Georg von Wright (1951) postulates 4 modes: alethic (necessary, possible, contingent, impossible), epistemic (verified, undecided, falsified), deontic (obligatory, permitted, indifferent, forbidden), and existential (universal, existing, empty).

✧ Categories of modality by Palmer?

Palmer (1986) focuses on epistemic and deontic modalities, which corresponding roughly with Jespersen’s two categories, while Palmer (2001) reorganizes categories of modality such that the first division is between Propositional modality on the one hand, encompassing both epistemic and evidential modality, and Event modality on the other hand, encompassing both deontic and dynamic modality. Propositional modality is concerned with the speaker’s attitude to the truth value or factual status of the proposition, while Event modality refers to events that are not actualized, events that have not taken place but are merely potential

✧ Define the term “reference” . also explain the nature of reference present by brown and yule?

reference items in English usually include pronouns (e.g.he, she, it, him, they, etc.), demonstratives (this, that, these, those), and the article the. For instance, Michael went to the bank. He was annoyed because it was closed.

Brown and Yule (1983) see the nature of reference in text and in discourse as an action on the part of a speaker/writer. It describes what they are doing “not the relationship which exists between one sentence or proposition and another.”

✧ Co-referential forms?

Halliday and Hassan (1976) states that co-referential forms are forms which instead of being interpreted semantically in their own right, make reference to something else for their interpretation. When the interpretation is within the text, this is an „Endophoric“ relation but in a situation where the interpretation of the text lies

outside the text, in the context of situation, the relationship is „exophoric“. However, exophoric relations play no part in textual cohesion. Endophoric relations on the other hand, form cohesive ties within the text. Endophoric relations are also of two types, those which look back in the text for their interpretation and those which look forward to the text for their interpretation (cataphoric relations). For instance, the following sentences show the use of reference.

✧ **Substitution rules?**

1. Avoiding repetition of nouns in formal situation using ‘THAT/ THOSE
2. 2. Avoiding repetition of nouns in informal situation using ‘ONE/ ONES’
3. Avoiding repetition of a verb and its object complement using ‘DO SO’
4. Avoiding repetition of a that-clause after certain verbs (think, hope, believe, suppose, reckon, guess, be afraid) using ‘SO’
5. Joining two positive sentences which have different subjects using ‘TOO/ SO’
6. Joining two negative sentences which have different subjects using ‘EITHER/ NEITHER’

✧ **Ellipsis rules?**

1. Leaving out words after auxiliaries (do, be, have, modals)
2. Leaving out to-infinitives
3. Leaving out articles, possessives, personal pronouns, auxiliaries at the beginning of sentences

✧ **Conjunction?**

Conjunctive elements are cohesive not in themselves but indirectly, by virtue of their specific meanings; they are not primarily devices for reaching out into the preceding (or following) text, but they express certain meaning which presuppose the presence of other components in the discourse (Halliday and Hasan, 1976).

✧ **Classification of conjunction by Halliday?**

According to Halliday (1985), conjunction is classified into elaboration, extension, and enhancement.

✧ **Difference between theme and rhyme?**

In English the Theme, the ‘point of departure’ for the clause, is also one of the means by which the clause is organized as a message. Theme is the ‘glue’ that structures and binds the Ideational and interpersonal meanings. In studies of Theme in children’s writing and in writing in the workplace, the choice and representation of Theme is seen as a crucial element related to the success of a text

Rhyme is everything that is not Theme: it is the part of the clause where the Theme is developed (Halliday, 1994). A message structure in English is comprised of a Theme plus a Rhyme. There is an order to the structure: Theme comes first, followed by Rhyme, and whatever is placed in initial position is Theme

✧ **Difference b/w tense and aspect?**

Tense is a term that refers to the way verbs change their form in order to indicate at which time a situation occurs or an event takes place. For finite verb phrases, English has just one inflectional form to express time, namely the past tense marker (-ed for regular verbs). Therefore, in English there is just a contrast between present and past tense.

Aspect is a grammatical category that reflects the perspective from which an action/situation is seen: as complete, in progress, having duration, beginning, ending, or being repeated. English has two aspects, progressive (also called continuous) and perfect (ive). Verbs that are not marked for aspect (the majority of them are not) are said to have simple aspect.

Chapter 13

✧ Thematisation ?

According to Brown and Yule (1983), “thematisation is a discourse rather than simply a sentimental process. What the speaker or writer puts first would influence the interpretation of everything that follows.” Thus, a title would influence the interpretation of the text which follows it. The first sentence of the first paragraph would constrain the interpretation not only of the paragraph, but also the rest of the text. That is, we assumed that every sentence forms part of a developing, cumulative instruction which told us how to construct a coherent representation.

✧ Staging?

“Staging” was a more general, more inclusive, term than thematisation (which refers only to the linear organization of texts). Every clause, sentence, paragraph, episode and discourse were organized around a particular element that is taken as its point of departure. It was as though the speaker presents what he wants to say from a particular perspective

✧ Titles as thematisation?

We argued in this Chapter that the 'title' of a stretch of discourse should not be equated with 'the topic' but should be regarded as one possible expression of the topic. We now wish to propose that the best way of describing the function of the title of a discourse is as a particularly powerful thematisation device. In the title of extract the topic entity was thematised, or, to express the relationship more accurately, when we found the name of an individual thematised in the title of the text, we expected that individual to be the topic entity. This expectation-creating aspect of thematisation, especially in the form of a title, means that thematised elements provide not only a starting point around which what follows in the discourse is structured, but also a starting point which constrains our interpretation of what follows.

✧ What is text?

In linguistics, the term text refers to: 1. The original words of something written, printed, or spoken, in contrast to a summary or paraphrase. 2. A coherent stretch of language that may be regarded as an object of critical analysis.

✧ Text linguistics ?

Text linguistics refers to a form of discourse analysis a method of studying written or spoken language that is concerned with the description and analysis of extended texts (those beyond the level of the single sentence). A text can be any example of written or spoken language, from something as complex as a book or legal document to something as simple as the body of an email or the words on the back of a cereal box.

✧ Concept of textures?

The concept of texture is entirely appropriate to express the property of ‘being a text’. This characteristic of a text distinguishes it from something that is not a text. The fact that a text functions as a unity with respect to its environment derives from this ‘texture’. If a passage of English containing more than one sentence is perceived as a text, there will be certain linguistic features present in the passage which can be identified as contributing to its total unity and giving it texture. For example: If we find the following instructions in the cooking book;

✧ Humanities?

In the humanities, different fields of study concern themselves with different forms of texts. Literary theorists, for example, focus primarily on literary texts novels, essays,

stories, and poems. Legal scholars focus on legal texts such as laws, contracts, decrees, and regulations. Cultural theorists work with a wide variety of texts, including those that may not typically be the subject of studies, such as advertisements, signage, instruction manuals, and other ephemera.

✧ **Ties?**

We need a term to refer to a single instance of cohesion, a term for one occurrence of a pair of cohesively related items. This is called a tie. The relation between them and six cooking apples in We need a term to refer to a single instance of cohesion, a term for one occurrence of a pair of cohesively related items. This is called a tie. The relation between them and six cooking apples in

✧ **Cohesion?**

The concept of cohesion is a semantic one. It refers to relations of meaning that exist within the texts, and that defines it as a text. Cohesion occurs where the interpretation of some element in the discourse is dependent on that of another. The one presupposes the other, in the sense that it cannot be effectively decoded except by recourse to it. When this happens, a relation of cohesion is set up and the two elements, the presupposing and the presupposed are thereby at least potentially integrated into a text.

✧ **Manners of references?**

Manners of Reference: on the basis of referring to a thing as identified in the context of situation or as identified in the surrounding text reference appears in two forms or manners. □ Exophora or Exophoric reference. □ Endophora or Endophoric reference

Exophoric reference: Exophora is reference to something extra-linguistic, i.e., not in the same text. It signals that reference must be made to context of situation. For example; pronouns with words such as 'this' 'that' 'there' 'here' are often exophoric. Did the gardener water those plants?

Endophoric Reference: Endophoric reference is the general name for within the text. Endophora is a term that means an expression which refers to something intra-linguistics i.e. in the same text. For example, in the sentence: I saw sally yesterday, she was lying on the beach

✧ **Theory of discourse representation?**

A theory of discourse interpretation that uses such an intermediate level of representation is Discourse Representation Theory (DRT), formalism proposed in the early 1980s by Hans Kamp. Discourse Representation Theory explain certain discourse phenomena, such as the interaction between indefinite noun phrases and (anaphoric) pronouns in texts shown before, the traditional account of considering meaning in terms of truth conditions turned out to be unsatisfactory. DRT adopts the rather 'dynamic' view of natural language semantics, where the meaning of a sentence is defined in how it can change the context.

✧ **Classes of pronouns?**

Pronouns include three classes: □ Personal pronoun □ Possessive determiners □ Possessive pronouns

✧ **Categories of pronouns?**

Pronouns may be classified by three categories: person, number, and case.

✧ **Person and its types ?**

Person refers to the relationship that an author has with the text that he or she writes, and with the reader of that text. English has three persons (first, second, and third): □ First-person is the speaker or writer him- or herself. The first person is personal (I, we, etc.) □ Second-person is the person who is being directly addressed. The speaker or author is saying this is about you, the listener or reader. □ Third-person is the most

common person used in academic writing. The author is saying this is about other people. In the third person singular there are distinct pronoun forms for male, female, and neutral gender.

✧ **Antecedent ? also explain pronoun antecedent?**

The word “antecedent” means something that precedes something else. In language, it is the word that a pronoun refers back to. Since the pronoun replaces the noun, it has to agree in number. So, if the antecedent, or word that comes before, is singular, then the pronoun that takes its place must also be singular. It can be confusing if there are several words between the pronoun and its antecedent. These words or clauses have no bearing on the words and they need to be ignored. A pronoun antecedent is a word that comes before a pronoun to which the pronoun refers. Following are definitions of antecedent as well as a review about the types of pronouns, information about the functions of an antecedent in a sentence, and examples of how to use in a sentence

Rules for use of indefinite pronouns as antecedents?

There are several rules concerning the use of indefinite pronouns as antecedents and the pronoun antecedent agreement. The following indefinite pronouns are singular and need a singular pronoun: one, no one, someone, everyone, anyone, nobody, anybody, somebody, everybody, nothing, anything, and something, everything, each, either, neither. An example is "Everything here has its own box." The plural indefinite pronouns: several, both, few, and many, need to have a plural pronoun, like in this sentence: "Several are there because of their looks." Lastly, if there is an indefinite pronoun that is being modified by a prepositional phrase, then the object of the phrase will determine the agreement between the pronoun and its antecedent.

✧ **Subject - predicate agreements?**

Subject-Predicate (Verb) Agreement Make sure you don't have subject-verb agreement problems in a complete sentence. Distractions within a sentence can make you misidentify subject and verb, leading to an agreement problem. Remember that a verb must agree in person and number with its subject, regardless of other elements in a sentence.

✧ **Subject - verb agreement?**

In sentences with more than one subject (a compound subject), the word and usually appears between the elements. Use a plural verb with a compound subject: □ Drinking a glass of milk and soaking in the tub help me fall asleep. □ NOT Drinking a glass of milk and soaking in the tub helps me fall asleep. If each/every precedes a compound subject, treat the subject as singular. □ Each dog and cat is to be fed twice a day. □ Every house and garage have been searched.

✧ **Additive phrases?**

An additive phrase sometimes makes a sentence look as if it has a compound subject. Examples of these phrases are accompanied by, along with, as well as, in addition to, including, and together with. When you use one of these phrases, you are thinking of more than one person or thing. But grammatically these phrases aren't conjunctions like and. They are actually modifying the subject, rather than making it compound. Therefore, do not use a plural verb because of these modifying phrases. □ The President of the United States, accompanied by his advisors, was en route to Europe. □ NOT The President of the United States, accompanied by his advisors, were en route to Europe.

✧ **Subject - verb agreement in relative clauses?**

Subject-verb agreement in relative clauses Agreement problems can occur in relative clauses using which, that, or one of those who. The verb in a relative clause must

agree with the relative pronoun's antecedent (the word the pronoun stands for). Always ask yourself what the relative pronoun refers to. □ He decided to write novels, which are his favorite form. □ NOT He decided to write novels, which is his favorite form.

✧ **How new pronouns can predicate?**

Pronouns may refer to predicate which are not mentioned previously. In discourse, the speaker may structure his message in such a way that some new information is attached to 'given' elements (i.e., pronouns) intending the hearer to provide the given/new interpretive procedure. However, the hearer may have to reverse that procedure and use the new information to decide what the given referent must have been. A predicate pronoun is any pronoun that is part of the predicate. A predicate is the part of a sentence that includes the verb and the words following it that relate to that verb. Explanation: Examples: □ I will call him. □ The teacher gave us a history assignment. □ Mother made lunch for them.

Chapter 14

✧ **Aims of discourse ethics ?**

Discourse ethics (DE) has two aims: to specify the ideal conditions for discourse and to ground ethics in the agreements reached through the exercise of such discourse. Discourse ethics consequently instantiates the intuition that if people discuss issues in fair and open ways, the resulting conclusions will be morally binding for those appropriately involved in the conversation. Such a view of ethics has special relevance in a scientific and technological world characterized by expanding means of communication. DE may also arguably provide the best framework for understanding the ethics of scientists and engineers operating within their professional communities.

✧ **Rules of discourse ethics proposed by habernas?**

According to Habermas (1990), these are: 1. Every subject with the competence to speak and act is allowed to take part in a discourse. 2a. everyone is allowed to question any assertion whatever. 2b. everyone is allowed to introduce any assertion whatever into the discourse. 2c. everyone is allowed to express his (or her) attitudes, desires, and needs. 3. No speaker may be prevented, by internal or external coercion, from exercising his (or her) rights as laid down in (1) and (2).

✧ **Theoretical role of discourse ethics?**

Discourse ethics is primarily associated with the work of Karl-Otto Apel (1980) and Jürgen Habermas, who touches his own theory of communicative rationality and action (1981) with Apel's insights (Habermas 1983, 1989). Apel and Habermas root DE emphasis on the importance of moral self-sufficiency for both the individual and the moral community (Apel 2001) and in Aristotle's understanding of the importance of human community praxis as the container in which all theory must be tested. DE has deeply influenced not only philosophy and sociology but also, in keeping with its praxis orientation, such applied fields as business ethics (

✧ **Speer arguments about data generation?**

Speer (2002) has argued that data cannot clearly be split into these two types ('naturally occurring' and 'contrived'). Speer claims that all situations can to some extent be seen as contrived and natural. Any institutional data can be viewed as contrived, equally, all data is also natural as it will involve real people speaking in real social situations, who will be 'naturally' generating action orientated talk. This is true even if that social situation has been constructed for the sake of research. Those who

do not have a problem with, or who value, 'contrived' data may well generate data for analysis by conducting interviews (e.g. Lauder et al. 2008) and focus groups

✧ **Confidentiality?**

Confidentiality refers to a condition in which the researcher knows the identity of a research subject, but takes steps to protect that identity from being discovered by others. Most human subject's research requires collection of a sign consent agreement from participants, and thus researchers are aware of the identity of their subjects. In such cases, maintaining confidentiality is a key measure to ensure the protection of private information.

✧ **What is discourse analysis as political meaning?**

Discourse analysis is a useful tool for studying the political meanings that inform written and spoken text. Discourse Analysis is the investigation of knowledge about language beyond the word, clause, phrase and sentence levels. All of them are the basic building blocks of successful communication. In discourse analysis researchers have to infiltrate language as a whole beyond the micro level of words and sentences and look at the entire body of communication produced in a given / particular situation. Discourse analysis refers to attempts to study the organization of language above the sentence or above the clause, and therefore to study larger linguistic units, such as conversational exchanges or written texts

✧ **Characteristics of a good research?**

The key to any good research project is a well-focused research question. It can, however, take longer than expected to find this question. Cameron (2001) has suggested that one important characteristic of a good research project is that it contains a 'good idea'; that is, the project is on something that is worth finding. As Cameron and others have pointed out, deciding on and refining the research question is often the hardest part of the project. It is, thus, worth spending as much time as necessary to get it right.

✧ **Criteria for developing a discourse analysis project?**

These criteria include ☐ A well-focused idea about spoken or written discourse that is expressed as a question or a set of closely related questions; ☐ An understanding of how discourse analytic techniques can be used to answer the research question you are asking; ☐ An understanding of why your question about spoken or written discourse are important in a wider context; that is, why answering the question will have practical value and/or be of interest to the world at large; ☐ Familiarity with and access to the location where your discourse analysis project will be carried out; ☐ Ability to get the discourse data that is needed for the research project;

The time it will realistically take to carry out the discourse analysis project, analyze the results and write up the results of the project; ☐ Being comfortable with and competent in the ways of collecting the discourse data required by the project; ☐ Being competent in the method of analysis required for the project.

✧ **Things that remember to select a research topic?**

there are a few things that you will need to do: ☐ brainstorm for ideas ☐ choose a topic that will enable you to read and understand the literature ☐ ensure that the topic is manageable and that material is available ☐ make a list of key words ☐ be flexible ☐ define your topic as a focused research question ☐ research and read more about your topic ☐ formulate a thesis statement

✧ **How a topic turn into research questions?**

Student had settled on his topic, but it still needed to be turned into a research question. A possible first attempt at this question might be, ☐ What are the differences between letters to the editor in Chinese and English? This question however

presupposes an outcome before the study has been carried out; that is, that there would indeed be differences between the two sets of writings. The question also does not capture anything of the theoretical models that might be used to answer this question. The refocused set of questions that my student ended up with was: 1. In what ways are Chinese and English letters to the editor similar or different? 2. Can we use genre theory and intercultural rhetoric to understand these similarities and differences

✧ **Kinds of discourse analysis projects?**

There are a number of different kinds of projects that can be carried out from a discourse analysis perspective. A number of these are described below, together with examples of previous discourse projects and details of the data that were collected for each of these projects. Replication of previous discourse studies One kind of study to consider is a replication study. Indeed, there has been a resurgence of interest in these kinds of studies in recent years. The editor of the journal *Language Teaching*, for example, argues that: Such research should play a more significant role in the field than it has up to now and that it is both useful and necessary. (*Language Teaching* review panel 2008)

✧ **Analyzing the existing data from a discourse analysis?**

Channell's (1997) study of telephone conversations took already published data, a conversation supposed to be between the Prince of Wales and Camilla Parker-Bowels, and analyzed it to see in what way the speakers expressed love, what the effect of the telephone was on their talk and what features of the conversation mark it as being the talk of two people who are in a close and intimate relationship. She looked at topic choice and topic management, ways of expressing love and caring, the language of desire and the way in which the speakers said goodbye to each other. Her study confirmed previous work on telephone closings in that both speakers employed an elaborate set of per-closings and continued repetitions (such as 'love you', 'love you forever' and 'love you too') before concluding their conversation. Anyhow, her study does show the value of taking already existing data to see how discourse analytic techniques can help to further understand already published data.

✧ **Nakane and Wang studies about combining discourse perspective with other's research perspectives?**

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Chapter 15

✧ **Genre as social action?**

Discourse arises among people, in interaction, and it is part of the means by which

people accomplish social actions. Meanings arise within the pragmatic unfolding of events and mediate the alignment of participants to perceptions of immediate situations and relevant contexts (whether fictive or non-fictive) called to mind by language. Language is crafted, deployed, and interpreted by individuals in the course of social participation, even when individuals use language in a personally reflective mode, considering one's own identity, commitments, and actions while using received language. Language users (with particular neurophysiology capacities and individual histories of language experience) in the course of interaction call upon the resources of language that are socially and culturally available and that have been typified through histories of social circulation; nonetheless, individuals construct meanings and consequentiality from their perception of particular novel situations and of their participant action in those situations. Discourse arises among people, in interaction, and it is part of the means by which people accomplish social actions. Meanings arise within the pragmatic unfolding of events and mediate the alignment of participants to perceptions of immediate situations and relevant contexts (whether fictive or non-fictive) called to mind by language. Language is crafted, deployed, and interpreted by individuals in the course of social participation, even when individuals use language in a personally reflective mode, considering one's own identity, commitments, and actions while using received language. Language users (with particular neurophysiology capacities and individual histories of language experience) in the course of interaction call upon the resources of language that are socially and culturally available and that have been typified through histories of social circulation; nonetheless, individuals construct meanings and consequentiality from their perception of particular novel situations and of their participant action in those situations. Discourse arises among people, in interaction, and it is part of the means by which people accomplish social actions. Meanings arise within the pragmatic unfolding of events and mediate the alignment of participants to perceptions of immediate situations and relevant contexts (whether fictive or non-fictive) called to mind by language. Language is crafted, deployed, and interpreted by individuals in the course of social participation, even when individuals use language in a personally reflective mode, considering one's own identity, commitments, and actions while using received language. Language users (with particular neurophysiology capacities and individual histories of language experience) in the course of interaction call upon the resources of language that are socially and culturally available and that have been typified through histories of social circulation; nonetheless, individuals construct meanings and consequentiality from their perception of particular novel situations and of their participant action in those situations. Discourse arises among people, in interaction, and it is part of the means by which people accomplish social actions. Meanings arise within the pragmatic unfolding of events and mediate the alignment of participants to perceptions of immediate situations and relevant contexts (whether fictive or non-fictive) called to mind by language. Language is crafted, deployed, and interpreted by individuals in the course of social participation, even when individuals use language in a personally reflective mode, considering one's own identity, commitments, and actions while using received language. Language users (with particular neurophysiology capacities and individual histories of language experience) in the course of interaction call upon the resources of language that are socially and culturally available and that have been typified through histories of social circulation; nonetheless, individuals construct meanings and consequentiality from their perception of particular novel situations and of their participant action in those situations. Discourse arises among people, in interaction, and it is part of the means by which people accomplish social actions.

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✧ **Genre typification?**

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✧ **Implications for analysis of discourse?**

The perspective presented here has several clear implications for the analysis of discourse. First, discourse occurs within a social situation and should be understood and analyzed, as it operates meaningfully within that situation. Second, discursive situations are understood by their participants as organized and structured so as to be meaningful and sensible to them. The mechanisms by which definitions of situation and action are shared among participants are at the heart of social systematicity and of the organization of discourse. Third, the knowledge, thought, and meanings expressed within situated utterances then become part of the ongoing resources and definition of the situation for future utterances. Discourse is to be understood dynamically, within the construction of those situations and of the larger social activity systems within which those utterances occur. Fourth, regularities of linguistic form usually accompany stabilization of social groups and activities so, to look for linguistic orders, we should look to social orders; and, to look for social orders, and we should look to linguistic orders. While in the past geography may have been the dominant cover able of linguistic variation, with literacy and other communication at a distance technology the social variables of linguistic variation are increasingly tied to more extensive groupings such as social and cultural institutions, disciplines and professions, work organizations, and media audiences. Fifth, linguistic entertainment into particular discursive practices goes hand in hand with socialization into activity networks and with cognitive development into the forms of thinking associated with interacting in those activity systems. Internalization of linguistic action transforms into dispositions and orientations. Sixth, when discourse travels outside of its original

ambit, the mechanisms for that wider travel are themselves topics of examination. This includes study of the genres within which such discourses arise, the genres in which they travel, and the genres into which they are received, as well as the processes that occur at the translation border between genres. Those discourses that seem to circulate freely among multiple situations also deserve investigation for the mechanisms by which they appear meaningful at multiple sites and for the differential ways in which they are integrated into different discursive systems and their genres

✧ **What is genre?**

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✧ **Genre analysis approach**

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✧ **Steps that involved in genre analysis?**

The first step, however, is to collect samples of the genre you are interested in. Bhatia suggests taking a few randomly chosen texts for exploratory investigation, a single typical text for detailed analysis, or a larger sample of texts if we wish to investigate a few specified features. Clearly, the more samples you can collect of the genre, however, the better you will be able to identify typical features of the genre. The next step is to consider what is already known about the particular genre. This includes knowledge of the setting in which it occurs as well as any conventions that are typically associated with the genre. For information on this, we can go to existing literature such as guide books and manuals as well as seek practitioner advice on the particular genre. It is also helpful to look at what analyses have already been carried out of the particular genre, or other related genres, by looking at research articles or books on the topic.

✧ **Factors that consider in written text?**

In the case of a written text, factors that might be considered Include: ☐ The setting of the text ☐ The focus and perspective of the text ☐ The purpose of the text ☐ The intended audience for the text, their role and purpose in reading the text The relationship between writers and readers of the text; expectations, conventions and requirements for the text ☐ The background knowledge, values and understandings it is assumed the writer shares with their readers, including what is important to the reader and what is not ☐ The relationship of the text has with other texts.

✧ **Principles of critical discourse analysis**

These include ☐ Social and political issues are constructed and reflected in discourse ☐ Power relations are negotiated and performed through discourse ☐ Discourse both reflects and reproduces social relations ☐ Ideologies are produced and reflected in the use of discourse

✧ **Multi modal discourse analysis**

Multi modal discourse analysis considers how texts draw on modes of communication such as pictures, film, video, images and sound in combination with words to make meaning. It has examined print genres as well as genres such as web pages, film and television programs. It considers how multi modal texts are designed and how semiotic tools such as colour, framing, focus and positioning of elements contribute to

the making of meaning in these texts. Much of the work in multi modal discourse analysis draws from Halliday's (1978, 1989) social semiotic approach to language, a view that considers language as one among a number of semiotic resources (such as gesture, images and music) that people use to communicate, or make meaning, with each other. Language, in this view, cannot be considered in isolation from meaning but needs to be considered within the sociocultural context in which it occurs.

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